

SUMMARY TABLE: ESSENTIAL MATHEMATICS GRADE 10

Sub-Strand 1.2: Indices — Teacher Reference (Pre-filled)

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Sub-Strand	Sub-Strand 1.2: Indices
Driving Question	DRIVING QUESTION: Why do scientists, economists and farmers use "small superscript numbers" to write huge or tiny quantities — and what rules make those compact symbols so powerful for computation?

INSTRUCTIONS

FOR TEACHERS: This is the teacher reference version — each row is pre-filled with expected student responses. Use it to assess student Summary Tables, identify gaps, and prepare discussion questions. The student version has blank cells for students to complete after each lesson.

Lesson # and Title	What did I observe?	What did I learn?	How does this explain the phenomenon?
Lesson 1 Noticing the Problem — Anchoring the Phenomenon of Indices	Students observed real-world quantities written in both long-form and index (exponential) form — for example, the national debt of Kenya expressed as a string of digits versus a compact power of 10, or the size of a maize grain's starch cell in decimal versus scientific notation. Teacher should display both representations side-by-side on the board and ask students to count the digits; the visible awkwardness of long-form notation is the anchoring phenomenon. Cold-call at least four students to read each number aloud — the stumbling and hesitation itself is pedagogically valuable evidence that a better notation is needed.	Students learned that a number written in index form has two parts: a BASE (the number being repeatedly multiplied) and an INDEX or POWER (the superscript count of how many times the base is multiplied by itself). For example, in 2^5 , the base is 2 and the index is 5. They learned to distinguish index notation from ordinary multiplication and recognised that index form is a compact shorthand — not a different value, just a more efficient representation of the same quantity.	Students explained why index notation exists by connecting it back to the anchoring phenomenon: writing $2 \times 2 \times 2 \times 2 \times 2$ or 100,000,000,000 is error-prone and space-consuming, whereas 2^5 and 10^{11} are unambiguous and compact. Teacher should prompt students to articulate this in their own words: 'So why does a Kericho tea-estate accountant prefer writing 10^9 shillings to writing 1,000,000,000 shillings?' Allow 30 seconds of wait time before cold-calling. Pedagogical note: ensure students do not yet conflate index notation with the laws — lesson 1 is purely about notation and motivation.
Lesson 2 Building Index Language: Bases, Exponents and Expanded Form	Students observed a structured set of examples moving from concrete repeated multiplication to index form and back: $3 \times 3 \times 3 = 3^3 = 27$; $5 \times 5 \times 5 \times 5 = 5^4 = 625$; $10 \times 10 \times 10 \times 10 \times 10 \times 10 = 10^6 = 1,000,000$. Teacher should write the expanded form first, invite students to count the factors aloud (choral counting), then introduce the index form. A second set of examples	Learners learned that an index expression a^n means the base a multiplied by itself exactly n times, and that the process works in both directions: expanded form $\rightarrow$ index form (compression) and index form $\rightarrow$ expanded form $\rightarrow$ value (evaluation). They learned the vocabulary — base, index/exponent/power — and practised identifying each part in unfamiliar	Students explained the relationship between expanded form and index form by constructing their own examples using Kenyan contexts — for instance, expressing the population growth of Nairobi as powers of 10. Teacher should ask: 'If I write 2^5 , how do I know it equals 32 and not 10?' (Expected answer: you expand it — $2 \times 2 \times 2 \times 2 \times 2$ — and count five factors.)

	should run in reverse — given 4^3 , students expand and evaluate. Use the context of githeri portions: 'A farmer triples her githeri stock each day for 4 days starting from 1 bag — how many bags on day 4?' (Answer: $3^4 = 81$ bags.)	expressions such as 7^2 , x^3 , and 10^5 . They also learned that the base can be any real number, including fractions and negative numbers, a point to revisit in later lessons.	Pedagogical note: watch for the common misconception that $a^n = a \times n$ (e.g. students writing $2^5 = 10$). Immediately address this by having the offending student expand both sides and compare: $2 \times 2 \times 2 \times 2 \times 2 = 32 \neq 2 \times 5 = 10$.
Lesson 3 Discovering the Product Law of Indices	Students observed a guided investigation: they expanded and evaluated pairs of same-base multiplications — $2^3 \times 2^4$, $3^2 \times 3^3$, $5^1 \times 5^2$ — recording expanded forms and results in a table. Teacher should circulate and direct groups to count the total number of base factors after combining the expansions. The key observable pattern is that the total number of factors equals the sum of the two exponents, every time. Use a Rift Valley maize-storage scenario: 'A warehouse stores 2^3 bags in Section A and 2^4 bags in Section B — write the total as a single power of 2.' This grounds the abstract pattern in a countable, local context.	Students learned the Product Law of Indices: when two powers with the same base are multiplied, the exponents are added — $a^m \times a^n = a^{m+n}$. They learned that this law works because expansion reveals that the total count of base factors is simply $m + n$. They also learned the critical boundary condition: the law applies ONLY when the bases are identical. Mixing bases (e.g. $2^3 \times 3^4$) does not simplify to a single power.	Students explained the Product Law by verifying it with numerical examples from their investigation table and then applying it to a new scenario without expanding — for example, simplifying $10^3 \times 10^5 = 10^8$ as used by a Kenyan meteorologist reporting rainfall data. Teacher should ask: 'How do you know adding the exponents gives the right answer — can you prove it without a calculator?' (Expected proof: expansion and factor counting.) Pedagogical note: insist that students state the law in words before writing it in symbols — this deepens conceptual understanding over rote rule-application.
Lesson 4 Discovering the Quotient Law of Indices	Students observed the cancellation pattern in division of same-base powers by expanding numerator and denominator and crossing out matching factors: e.g. $2^5 \div 2^2 = (2 \times 2 \times 2 \times 2 \times 2) \div (2 \times 2)$ — two 2s cancel, leaving 2^3 . Teacher should run this as a class demonstration first, then have pairs repeat with $3^5 \div 3^2$, $5^4 \div 5^1$, and $10^7 \div 10^4$. The Uasin Gishu maize-harvest scenario anchors the lesson: 'A cooperative harvests 10^6 kg of maize and distributes 10^3 kg to each lorry — how many lorry-loads?' ($10^6 \div 10^3 = 10^3 = 1,000$ lorry-loads.)	Students deduced the Quotient Law of Indices: $a^m \div a^n = a^{m-n}$ (for $a \neq 0$). They learned that this law emerges directly from the cancellation of common factors — subtracting the exponent is a shortcut for crossing out denominator factors. They also encountered the important edge case: when $m = n$, the result is a^0 , which sets up the zero-index law to be formalised in a later lesson. Boundary condition: as with the product law, bases must be identical.	Students explained how the Quotient Law connects to the Product Law — division undoes multiplication, so subtraction of exponents undoes addition. Teacher should facilitate this connection explicitly: 'If $a^m \times a^n = a^{m+n}$, what operation on exponents should division produce?' (Expected: subtraction.) Cold-call three students to apply the law to fresh problems before any written practice. Pedagogical note: the case where $n > m$ (producing negative exponents) may arise — acknowledge it as a preview of a future lesson rather than avoiding it; this keeps intellectual curiosity alive.
Lesson 5 Discovering the Power-of-a-Power Law: $(a^m)^n = a^{mn}$	Students observed a visual/numerical investigation: they expanded $(2^3)^2$ step by step — first rewriting as $2^3 \times 2^3$, then expanding each factor, counting all base-2 factors to get 2^6 . They repeated with $(3^2)^4$ and $(5^1)^3$. Teacher should draw a two-stage 'nesting' diagram on the board — an outer bracket and inner bracket — to make the structure visible. Connect to a Kenyan	Students learned the Power-of-a-Power Law: $(a^m)^n = a^{mn}$ — when a power is raised to another power, the exponents are multiplied. They understood WHY: raising a^m to the power n means writing a^m exactly n times, each contributing m factors of a , giving $m \times n$ factors in total. They also practised distinguishing $(a^m)^n$ from $a^m \times a^n$ — a critical structural distinction that	Students explained the Power-of-a-Power Law by narrating the two-stage expansion process and connecting it to the Product Law: $(a^m)^n$ is simply n copies of a^m multiplied together, so the Product Law applied $n-1$ times yields a^{mn} . Teacher should ask: 'Is $(2^3)^4$ the same as $2^3 \times 2^4$? Prove it by expansion.' $(2^3)^4 = 2^{12} = 4,096$; $2^3 \times 2^4 = 2^7 = 128$ — clearly different.

	biotech context: 'A lab technician in Nairobi doubles a bacterial culture (2^3 cells per dish) and then replicates the entire setup 4 times — how many cells in total?' ($(2^3)^4 = 2^{12} = 4,096$ cells.)	prevents the most common error at this stage.	Pedagogical note: give 2 minutes of silent think time before group discussion; this prevents fast finishers from dominating and ensures all learners construct the distinction themselves.
Lesson 6 The Zero Index and Negative Indices — Extending the Pattern	Students observed a carefully constructed descending pattern using the Quotient Law: $2^4 = 16$, $2^3 = 8$, $2^2 = 4$, $2^1 = 2$, and then — what comes next? Teacher should write the sequence on the board, leaving 2^0 and 2^{-1} blank, and invite students to predict the pattern (each step divides by 2). Students then verify using the Quotient Law: $2^3 \div 2^3 = 2^0$, but also $= 8 \div 8 = 1$, so $2^0 = 1$. Extend the sequence to $2^{-1} = \frac{1}{2}$, $2^{-2} = \frac{1}{4}$. Anchor in context: 'A mobile data plan in Mombasa halves every hour — if you start with 2^4 MB, what do you have after 4 hours?' ($2^4 \div 2^4 = 2^0 = 1$ MB.)	Students learned two new index laws derived from extending the Quotient Law pattern: (1) the Zero Index Law — for any non-zero base a , $a^0 = 1$, because $a^n \div a^n = a^{n-n} = a^0$, and any number divided by itself equals 1; and (2) Negative Indices — $a^{-n} = 1/a^n$, because the descending pattern and the Quotient Law both demand it. Students learned that these are not arbitrary definitions but logical extensions of the same rules already established. Boundary condition: 0^0 is undefined — flag this clearly.	Students explained the Zero Index Law and negative indices by tracing them back to the Quotient Law, demonstrating that no new rules are needed — only consistent application of existing ones. Teacher should prompt: 'Did we invent a new rule today, or did the rules we already know force us to accept $a^0 = 1$?' (Expected: the rules forced us.) This builds the meta-mathematical insight that mathematics is internally consistent. Pedagogical note: some students find $a^0 = 1$ counterintuitive ('multiplying nothing should give nothing'). Counter with the Quotient Law proof — do not simply assert the result.
Lesson 7 Real-Life Applications and Problem Solving — Explain & DQB Refinement	Students observed a curated set of authentic Kenyan data sets presented as index-form quantities: (a) Kenya's GDP $\approx 10^{11}$ USD; (b) the diameter of a red blood cell $\approx 8 \times 10^{-6}$ m as used by a Nairobi Hospital pathologist; (c) a Kericho tea-farm's compound yield modelled as 1.05^{10} (approximately 1.63, meaning 63% growth over 10 seasons); (d) a mobile money transfer of 10^5 KES split into 10^2 equal payments. Teacher should present each scenario as a problem card and have student groups identify which index law applies before calculating.	Students learned that the four laws of indices — Product Law ($a^m \times a^n = a^{m+n}$), Quotient Law ($a^m \div a^n = a^{m-n}$), Power-of-a-Power Law ($(a^m)^n = a^{mn}$), and Zero Index Law ($a^0 = 1$) — are not abstract classroom rules but practical tools used by Kenyan scientists, economists, farmers, and healthcare workers to manage and compute with very large and very small numbers efficiently. They practised selecting the correct law, applying it, and interpreting the result in context.	Students explained their reasoning for each scenario to the class, justifying which law was selected and why. Teacher should insist on full verbal justification: 'Tell me the law you used and why it applies here — not just the answer.' After each group presentation, the class updates the Driving Question Board (DQB) to record which part of the driving question that scenario answered. Pedagogical note: this lesson is as much about mathematical communication and contextual reasoning as it is about computation — award equal credit for explanation quality and numerical accuracy.
Lesson 8 Index Laws Map: Synthesis, Final Explanation and Portfolio Assessment	Students observed their own accumulated work — notes, DQB entries, model diagrams, and worked examples from Lessons 1–7 — laid out as a complete record of learning. Teacher facilitates a 'museum walk': student pairs circulate to three posted anchor charts (one per major law cluster) and add one sticky note confirming, extending, or questioning each chart. This structured observation allows	Students consolidated all four index laws into a unified 'Index Laws Map': multiplication $\rightarrow$ add exponents ($a^m \times a^n = a^{m+n}$); division $\rightarrow$ subtract exponents ($a^m \div a^n = a^{m-n}$); power of a power $\rightarrow$ multiply exponents ($(a^m)^n = a^{mn}$); zero index $\rightarrow$ result is always 1 ($a^0 = 1$); negative index $\rightarrow$ reciprocal power ($a^{-n} = 1/a^n$). They learned that all five results are logically connected — each one derivable from the definition of	Students produced a final written explanation — their portfolio assessment piece — answering the driving question in full: 'Why do scientists, economists and farmers use small superscript numbers, and what rules make them powerful for computation?' Each student's response should cite at least two Kenyan real-world examples, state all four laws symbolically and in words, and include one worked multi-

	students to see the full landscape of index laws as a coherent, connected system rather than a list of isolated rules.	repeated multiplication — and that index notation is a universal shorthand valued across disciplines because it reduces cognitive load and computational error.	step problem. Teacher should use a co-constructed rubric (clarity of explanation, correct use of laws, quality of real-world connection) to assess. Pedagogical note: the portfolio response doubles as a revision resource — encourage students to keep it with their Index Laws Map as a study tool for end-of-strand assessments.
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ATTRIBUTION AND LICENSING

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